

The Political Ecology of Opinion in Big-Donor Neighborhoods

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Abstract Major campaign donors are highly concentrated geographically. A relative handful of neighborhoods accounts for the bulk of all money contributed to political campaigns. Public opinion in these elite neighborhoods is very different from that in the country as a whole and in low-donor areas. On a number of prominent political issues, the prevailing viewpoint in high-donor neighborhoods can be characterized as cosmopolitan and libertarian, rather than populist or moralistic. Merging Federal Election Commission contribution data with three recent large-scale national surveys, we find that these opinion differences are not solely the result of big-donor areas' high concentration of wealthy and educated individuals. Instead, these neighborhoods have a distinctive political ecology that likely reinforces and intensifies biases in opinion. Given that these locales are the origin for the lion's share of campaign donations, they may steer the national political agenda in unrepresentative directions.

Keywords Campaign fundraising · Public opinion · Political elites · Campaign donors · Political ecology · Political geography

A small and extremely wealthy set of people fund American political campaigns. For all the attention given to the potential of the Internet to democratize campaign giving, the bulk of contributions is still raised from big donors. Even though the presidential campaign of Barack Obama drew in an unprecedented 3 million

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individual donors, for example, only a quarter of the \$600 million he raised came from small donors contributing less than \$200—slightly less than the proportion the George W. Bush campaign raised from small donors in 2003–2004 (Mosk and Cohen 2008). In 2008, as in previous years, a tiny slice of the electorate provided the resources that both major political parties needed to wage their campaigns. The mere act of donating to a campaign places a donor among an elite.¹ Campaigns, in turn, are largely funded by an even narrower group within that small pool: the large donor who habitually gives (Francia et al. 2003).

Previous research based on surveys has established that donors are highly unrepresentative of the public (Brown et al. 1995; Francia et al. 2003). Donors are disproportionately old, white, and male (Brown et al. 1993). They tend to be more politically conservative (Brown et al. 1995; Francia et al. 2003; Joe et al. 2008). Most of all, they are highly affluent: “The major determinant of giving money [to campaigns] is having money.... Even political interest has only a modest impact on the amount donated” (Brady et al. 1995, 283).

What is not well understood from previous research, however, is that the donor class is also *geographically* distinct. The nation’s wealthy elite is strikingly concentrated in geographic terms (Florida 2002; Massey 1996; Massey and Eggers 1993; Massey and Fischer 2003). A relative handful of neighborhoods—clustered in locations around the largest U.S. metro areas—accounts for the overwhelming majority of funds contributed to political campaigns. According to Federal Election Commission (FEC) data, donors residing in a mere 5% of the nation’s zip codes accounted for 77% of all itemized funds contributed to political campaigns in the 2005–2006 election cycle, 67% in 2003–2004, and 70% in 1999–2000.² Residents of these zip codes comprise a mere 14% of the nation’s population. These neighborhoods are the “political A.T.M.s” to which both the nation’s major political parties go to bankroll their electoral efforts (Gimpel et al. 2008, 390). Even though the two parties rely on different regions of the country for their electoral support, they draw on the same rich neighborhoods for funding (Gimpel et al. 2006; Gimpel and Lee 2006).

The focus of this paper is on the climate of opinion that characterizes these elite *locations*. By merging FEC contributions data with individual level data from a number of large-scale surveys, we are able to compare public opinion in high-donor locales with national averages and with opinion in low-donor areas. Few of the mega-rich donors at the hub of the American campaign finance system are captured in surveys of contributors, which gather data on a sample of donors representative of the universe of donors who contribute enough money to be reported to the FEC. Such studies are not targeted to capture the truly elite contributor or the networks of big donors located together in the most important donor neighborhoods. Albeit indirect, our approach—the study of donor geography—allows us to study the places these elite contributors live. In doing so, we seek to answer two main questions.

¹ In 2008, a year in which campaign contributions shattered all previous records, a mere 15% of Americans surveyed reported making a donation of any amount to a campaign; in 2007, the percentage was 8% (Pew Research Center 2008).

² For this calculation, we sum the itemized FEC contributions to all federal election candidates and both major parties from each zip code.

First, we want to know to what extent these resource-rich areas differ from the nation's mainstream. We find that large campaign donations tend to emerge out of locations with a distinctive and highly unrepresentative ecology of opinion. The nation's most affluent donors reside in locations where opinion is skewed away from the rest of American society. Taken together, these locations do not favor one political party, and opinion in these areas does not exhibit marked divergence from the rest of the country on many of the issues that divide the parties. However, we find striking deviation from the nation's center of gravity on a subset of issues that might be said to set a cosmopolitan or libertarian perspective against a more populist or moralistic stance. On issues such as trade, immigration, gay marriage, school prayer, gun control, and abortion, opinion in these elite locations is very different from the national average and vastly different from opinion in the many low- or no-contribution areas.

Second, we want to know whether geographic context has an independent effect on opinion in high- and low-donor areas. It may well be that these differences in opinion are simply an artifact of the clustering of different types of people in different areas. Given that income affects political opinion, for example, we would certainly expect areas with large proportions of wealthy people to have a corresponding political tilt. Even after we account for individual characteristics that predict opinion—income, education, race, party identification, and church attendance—we find that the affluent donor neighborhood remains a source of attitude formation and constraint. In short, these activist elite communities are more unrepresentative of the country than one would expect on the basis of the types of individuals who live there. The findings point toward a distinct political culture in areas characterized by high-dollar campaign contributing.

Theories of Place

Research on donors has not previously taken the geography of giving into account, in part because political science generally tends to deemphasize place as an explanatory variable. Political science tends to follow King's (1996, 160) recommendation that "the professional goal of all scientists should be to attempt to demonstrate that context makes no difference whatsoever." Instead, the goal is usually to define and measure variables in a general way that allows for the development of rules that can apply regardless of context. As with political opinion and behavior generally, campaign donors' activities are usually explained by reference to their individual characteristics, resources, and motivations (Brown et al. 1995; Francia et al. 2003; Brady et al. 1995).

Place as Locus of Socialization

Research on political socialization offers important reason to expect that the social and political contexts of high-donor areas are relevant for understanding donor attitudes. Places create and reinforce social milieus and political cultures that in turn shape their inhabitants. Where one lives determines what individuals learn to accept

and reject in themselves and others, as core psychological orientations are formed within social environments (Huckfeldt and Sprague 1995; Agnew 1987, 48–51; Johnston 1991, 53–54). Political attitudes are acquired through imitation and adoption of cultural models offered by parents, teachers, relatives, and neighbors (Jennings and Niemi 1968; Beck and Jennings 1991; Niemi and Jennings 1991; Gimpel et al. 2003). These influentials are not placeless; indeed, social space and geographic space closely coincide.

Opinion is also structured by space because geographic distance limits exposure to diverse viewpoints and brings people into limited contact with those of dissimilar background. Political preferences and beliefs are thus socially interdependent. An important line of research has shown that individuals pay close attention to what those in their proximate environment think about politics and consult with them on political choices (Berelson et al. 1954; Huckfeldt et al. 1995). The likelihood of adopting a particular political viewpoint is greatly enhanced by the local presence of people who hold that view (Huckfeldt and Sprague 1995; Agnew 1987; Putnam 1966).

The research on contextual effects suggests that the highly connected and educated donor class ought to be particularly susceptible to local influences: “People who are better educated and organizationally involved...are the very people who are most likely to be exposed to local climates of opinion” (Huckfeldt et al. 1995, 1050). To the extent that elite donor locations are populated with educated people with a rich array of social connections, individuals within those areas are probably more susceptible to local prevailing opinion than individuals elsewhere.

Place as Basis for Social Networks

Context is also likely to be particularly important to understanding donor neighborhoods because political giving is elicited through social networks. One of the most important reasons people contribute to campaigns is because they are asked to do so (Francia et al. 2003; Grant and Rudolph 2002; Verba et al. 1995). Parties enlist prominent solicitors who then raise great sums among their local networks and via face-to-face fundraising events. Individualized, personal solicitation is necessary to induce donors to make large contributions (Brown et al. 1995; Cooper 2003). The tendency of the wealthy to live together in particular geographic locations, often insular from the rest of society, enhances interaction and fosters the institutionalization of giving (Ostrower 1995). In short, contextual influences are vital to understanding the network basis of political contributing (Apinunmahakul and Devlin 2008; Brady et al. 1999; Gimpel et al. 2006; Verba et al. 1995).

Because of socialization and network influences, public opinion in the major donor localities is likely to be more than a function of the individuals who live there. Social context fosters the development of shared opinions among group members; these views are amplified as members reinforce rather than challenge one another's viewpoints (Laumann 1973; Mutz 2006).

Place as Self-Selected Setting

An alternative perspective would argue that distinctive opinion patterns in high-donor areas are largely a consequence of self-selection processes in which like-minded people congregate together. This view would point out that the wealthy, simply by virtue of their prosperity, are especially unconstrained in their residential choices. Because they can choose exactly where they want to live, opinion ecologies in affluent neighborhoods need not be the consequence of socialization pressures. Geographic homogeneity in opinion can be present without any contextual or network effects (Gimpel and Schuknecht 2003).

Choice of neighborhoods is a way for individuals to signal their status and social identity to others (Higley 1995; Lindstrom 1997, 20; Cuba and Hummon 1993; Sirgy et al. 2005). The wealthy seek to reside in communities that are geographically isolated from the non-wealthy (Danielson 1976). As a consequence, the concentration of wealthy people in exclusive neighborhoods may largely or wholly account for the unrepresentative character of public opinion in the nation's major contribution centers.

People also choose where they want to live on the basis of personal fit and comfort with the neighborhood. In making residential choices, home buyers don't conduct opinion polls of neighborhoods, but they do take readings from the general environment in assessing whether they would fit in. Such estimates can be formulated on the basis of observed consumption patterns and may not involve communication with local residents (Baybeck and McClurg 2005). Prospective residents can gauge neighborhood aesthetics and appearance, taking mental note of current residents' homes, possessions, and yards. Race and socioeconomic indicators are also obvious cues. Consumption habits and political opinions covary because both are often expressions of personal identity. As a result, people selecting communities on the basis of lifestyle, status, and aesthetics may well find themselves living among those who also share their political views (Bishop 2008).

The analysis that follows will first ascertain how public opinion in high-donor neighborhoods differs from that in other places in the country. Following the presentation of descriptive data, we will then assess whether the observed opinion differences can be accounted for by the type of individuals who live in high-donor neighborhoods (the *self-selection hypothesis*) or whether opinion in these neighborhoods is more divergent than one would expect based on the characteristics of the people who live there (the *socialization/network hypothesis*).

Data Sources

To identify and study public opinion in high- and low-donor neighborhoods, we began by aggregating official FEC election contributions to their zip code of origin for each election cycle. We did not differentiate by the political party of the contributor or the beneficiary. Instead, we just totaled all contributions from a zip code to both major parties and all major party candidates for federal elections. Because there is so much overlap in the neighborhoods that Democratic and

Republican candidates draw upon for fundraising (Gimpel et al. 2006; Gimpel and Lee 2006), subdividing contributions by party would greatly complicate the analysis without providing substantially more information.³

We needed surveys with a sufficient number of respondents to examine public opinion at the neighborhood level. The large-scale surveys that proved ideal for this purpose were the 2000 and 2004 National Annenberg Election Surveys (NAES) and the 2006 Cooperative Congressional Election Study (CCES).⁴ Using zip codes, FEC data on contributions was merged with survey data on individual respondents.

The NAES surveyed respondents by telephone and included very large samples of 81,400 respondents in 2004, collected over the year between October 7, 2003 and November 16, 2004; and 58,373 respondents in 2000, collected between December 14, 1999 and January 19, 2001 (Romer et al. 2006).

The 2006 CCES survey provides an opt-in Internet sample of 36,500 respondents conducted by the firm Polimetrix/YouGov from September through Election Day 2006. Respondents were selected from a large preexisting panel according to how well they matched basic characteristics of the general population (age, race, gender, education, plus imputed values of partisanship and ideology) as gauged by the U.S. Census Bureau's American Community Survey. Compared with traditional random digit dialed (RDD) telephone samples, the CCES sample is biased toward better educated respondents who are slightly more informed about political issues, but there are only negligible biases away from the target population on a number of other criterion variables (Hill et al. 2007). Traditional sampling methods also produce bias, and sample matching based on Internet panels such as the CCES may not be appreciably worse than random digit dialing (Hill et al. 2007).

Note, however, that we are not examining donor attitudes per se. This is a study of public opinion in donor *neighborhoods*. Drawing any direct inference from a neighborhood to individuals within it is to commit the ecological fallacy. However, we would argue that the differences in public opinion between low-, average-, and high-donor locales are interesting in their own right, given that parties and candidates spend so much time and effort fundraising in the small subset of places that make the bulk of all campaign contributions. Also in favor of our approach, we offer the fact that zip codes are small units of aggregation, not nearly as expansive as municipalities or counties.⁵ In addition, the most elite donors are rarely captured by surveys of political contributors due to their inaccessibility, non-response, and very small numbers. Isolating the highest contributing zip codes offers unique information about the local context of the most consequential donors and the locus

³ Without question, there is a positive association between areas of high income and locations that give large contributions, but this correlation is not as strong as one might expect. (Correlating median income and contribution amounts yields the following results for 2004: $\rho = 0.40$; $p \leq 0.001$; for 2000: $\rho = 0.25$; $p \leq 0.001$.) There is considerable discrepancy between where the rich reside and where rich *political activists* reside. Correlating professional employment and education level with contribution amounts yields similar results. Indicators for all these constructs are positively associated with campaign giving at the zip code level, but the correlations are of only moderate strength. The upshot is that a variable reflecting contribution amounts does not simply measure an area's high income or professional status.

⁴ Wording for the survey items used in this study is provided in [Appendix A](#).

⁵ The average zip code in 2004, for example, has a mean population of 10,405 and a mean voting age population of 7,055. Zip codes in urban areas generally contain more people than those in rural areas.

of their networks. To the extent that local context shapes political opinion, donors are likely to be influenced by and reflective of the dominant viewpoints in their neighborhoods.

The Populist-Cosmopolitan Divide

These three surveys offer information on public opinion on a wide range of issues in both domestic and foreign policy. As a first look at patterns in the data, Table 1 displays the overall average response on an array of items from each of the surveys, along with the means in high-donor and low-donor areas. In order to increase confidence in any patterns evident in the data, we identified similar items across each of the surveys, two of which were taken during presidential election campaigns and one in a midterm year. The large scale of these surveys allows for very respectable numbers of respondents in the zip codes at both the top and bottom 5% of the distribution of total campaign contributions.

As is evident from this table, opinion in high-donor communities is distinct on a large number of issues, but not across the board. On many of the most partisan issues in contemporary American politics (shown on the second page of the table)—minimum wage, affirmative action, Social Security private accounts, income redistribution, capital gains taxation, troop presence in Iraq—high-donor neighborhoods are broadly representative of the rest of the country. On these issues, opinion in high-donor neighborhoods is not precisely the same as the national average or in low-donor neighborhoods, but it does not diverge widely.

In addition, on the partisan issues shown on the second page of Table 1, high-donor locations are neither consistently more left- nor right-leaning than the opinion prevailing in either the nation as a whole or in low-donor locations. On support for capital gains tax reductions and private Social Security accounts, there was no meaningful difference between low- and high-donor areas (2006 CCES). Compared to both low-donor areas and the national average, high-donor communities were somewhat more supportive of school vouchers (2004 NAES) and slightly more in favor of removing troops from Iraq within 1 year (2006 CCES). In the 2000 NAES, high-donor areas were less supportive of income redistribution than is typical of the nation and of low-donor areas; in the 2004 NAES, high-donor areas were generally representative of the country on this issue and only slightly less supportive of income redistribution than low-donor areas. There were also no consistent differences between high- and low-donor locations on affirmative action programs, government responsibility for health care, or support for the minimum wage.

Nevertheless, there is a substantial set of issues on which public opinion in high-donor neighborhoods is wildly divergent from the national average and from opinion in low-donor neighborhoods. On a group of issues that might be described as setting a cosmopolitan or libertarian perspective against a more populist or moralistic point-of-view, opinion in high-donor neighborhoods sharply contrasts with opinion in both the nation as a whole and in low-donor areas. High-donor areas are distinctively anti-populist on important issues that energize grassroots elements on both the left and the right. With respect to the populist issues of the right,

Table 1 Percentage offering support for the libertarian/liberal position on selected issues, by residence in the top or bottom 5% of the distribution of total campaign contributions from zip codes, 2000, 2004 and 2006

	All	Top 5%	Bottom 5%
<i>Cosmopolitan-populist issues</i>			
NAES 2000			
Foreign competition is a problem (extremely serious or serious)	68.1 (16,067)	48.3 (515)	79.0 (973)
Immigration is a problem (extremely serious or serious)	67.2 (15,809)	51.7 (615)	76.3 (922)
Federal govt should do more to restrict gun purchases (more)	52.4 (3,188)	71.5 (208)	42.2 (135)
Federal govt should allow school prayer (yes)	60.7 (14,179)	74.0 (489)	41.7 (902)
Sale of RU-486 abortion pill (favor)	52.4 (3,188)	71.5 (208)	42.2 (135)
Favor restricting abortion (oppose)	59.8 (12,407)	78.4 (830)	51.2 (557)
Gays serving in the military (favor)	61.0 (18,289)	71.9 (1,082)	53.1 (803)
NAES 2004			
Favor more free trade agreements (strongly favor or favor)	47.4 (2,6359)	57.7 (1,591)	40.8 (1,115)
Favor federal govt encouraging free trade (encourage a lot)	35.6 (642)	48.4 (46)	27.7 (31)
Favor restrictions on immigration (more)	61.8 (11,997)	67.5 (665)	47.1 (448)
Favor banning abortions (strongly or somewhat oppose)	66.0 (40,833)	79.5 (2,435)	56.9 (1,785)
Favor gun control (more)	40.3 (13,678)	71.7 (1,218)	48.1 (823)
Favor state laws same-sex marriage (strongly or somewhat favor)	36.9 (2,820)	55.9 (209)	22.7 (85)
Stem cell funding (favor)	67.4 (4,571)	61.0 (213)	79.5 (256)
CCES 2006			
On ratification of CAFTA free trade agreement (for)	35.5 (9,467)	49.4 (686)	27.1 (364)
Illegal immigrants becoming citizens (for)	39.6 (12,662)	56.0 (897)	28.8 (472)
Abortion opinion (women should always be able to obtain...)	46.5 (15,503)	62.9 (1,024)	35.7 (629)
Constitutional amend ban gay marriage (strongly or somewhat oppose)	53.9 (7387)	72.8 (631)	40.6 (229)
Support a ban on late term abortions (against a ban)	36.7 (12,994)	50.5 (889)	28.4 (525)
Federal funding for stem cell research (favor)	68.2 (8,699)	78.9 (651)	58.7 (313)
<i>Other issues</i>			
NAES 2000			
Federal govt should expand affirmative action (more programs)	10.1 (5,251)	7.7 (199)	11.8 (305)
Healthcare is a problem (extremely serious or serious)	9.9 (2,357)	10.7 (129)	8.3 (103)
Poverty is a problem (extremely serious or serious)	80.5 (42,400)	79.6 (2,065)	81.4 (2,129)

Table 1 continued

	All	Top 5%	Bottom 5%
Federal govt should level income (yes)	49.8 (11,413)	44.3 (516)	55.7 (660)
Favor school vouchers (yes)	37.6 (8,159)	40.1 (439)	30.8 (352)
NAES 2004			
Increasing minimum wage (strongly favor or favor)	83.1 (3,983)	79.8 (210)	89.1 (221)
Prescription drug coverage for seniors (strongly favor)	73.0 (5,448)	70.5 (273)	76.1 (299)
Federal govt should level income (strongly favor)	40.3 (15,370)	41.3 (799)	44.4 (856)
Support school vouchers (strongly favor or favor)	49.4 (20,332)	58.8 (1,490)	45.6 (1,427)
CCES 2006			
Affirmative action programs (very important)	23.4 (8,275)	22.9 (405)	19.1 (353)
Private social security accounts (strongly favor)	27.1 (9,622)	24.4 (432)	25.3 (467)
Withdraw troops within 1 year (for)	58.2 (20,638)	62.8 (1,108)	57.3 (1,058)
Increasing minimum wage (for)	74.1 (26,233)	76.8 (1,353)	73.1 (1,350)
Capital gains tax reduction (for)	41.0 (26,233)	39.2 (691)	38.9 (720)

Cell entries are tabulated percentages (N)

Sources: NAES 2000, 2004; CCES 2006

Note: Question wording and response options on similar questions are not usually identical across surveys, see [Appendix A](#)

respondents from big-donor centers are strongly opposed to abortion limits, bans on gay marriage, gun rights, and strong immigration restrictions. With respect to left-populism, high-donor locales are relatively unconcerned with the effects of foreign competition and considerably more favorable to free trade agreements.

On both left- and right-leaning sets of populist concerns, high-donor neighborhoods are out of step with both the country as a whole and with low-donor neighborhoods. Cosmopolitan/populist items are grouped together on the first page of Table 1. Among items falling into this category on the three surveys, the stem cell funding question from the 2004 NAES was the only one that did not reveal high-donor areas to be far more anti-populist than low-donor areas or the nation as a whole.⁶ Generally speaking, populism gets a poor reception in affluent elite neighborhoods.

Figures 1, 2, and 3 provide a clear picture of the relationship between a neighborhood's level of campaign contributions and its prevailing opinion on these cosmopolitan/populist issues. These figures graph the percentage of respondents

⁶ Stem cell research is somewhat of a dubious fit in the cosmopolitanism/populism issue category, in any case. Although opinion on this issue is influenced by the grassroots anti-abortion politics of the right, it is also shaped by the politics of medical research and the outreach campaigns of specific disease-treatment focused interests.

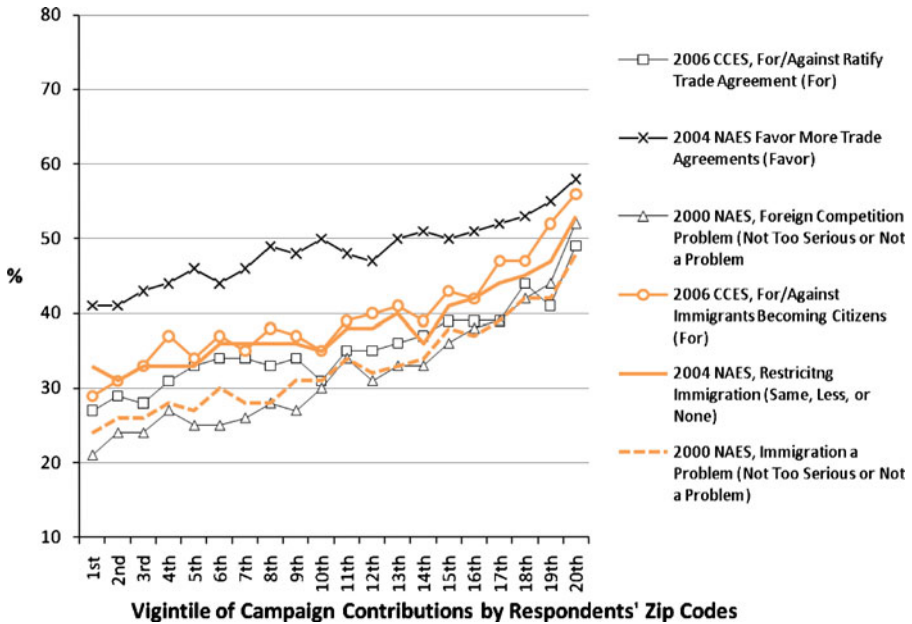


Fig. 1 Trade and immigration attitudes by vigintile of zip code campaign contribution amount (*sources*: National Annenberg Election Study 2000 and 2004; Cooperative Congressional Election Study 2006)

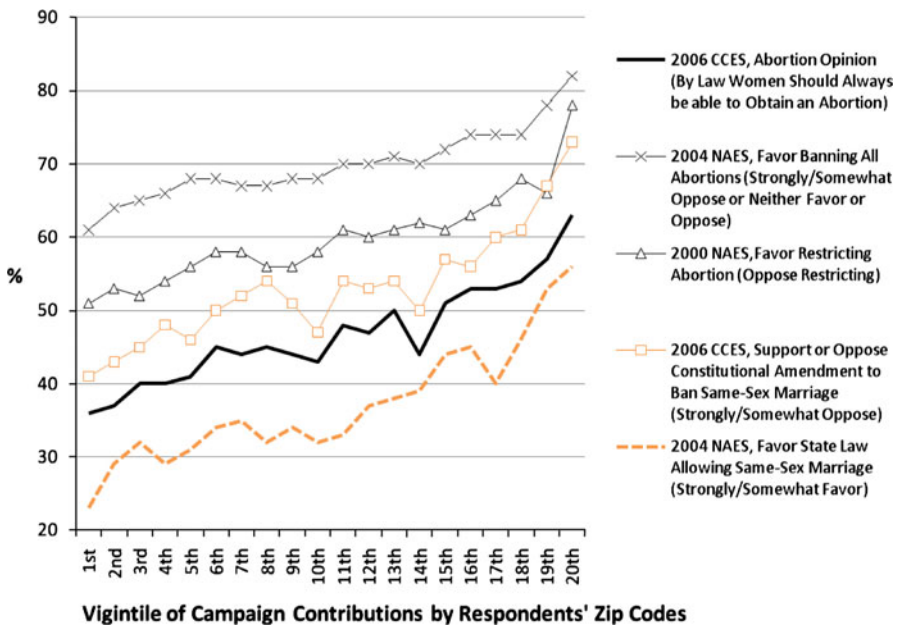


Fig. 2 Abortion and gay rights attitudes by vigintile of zip code campaign contribution amount (*sources*: National Annenberg Election Study 2000 and 2004; Cooperative Congressional Election Study 2006)

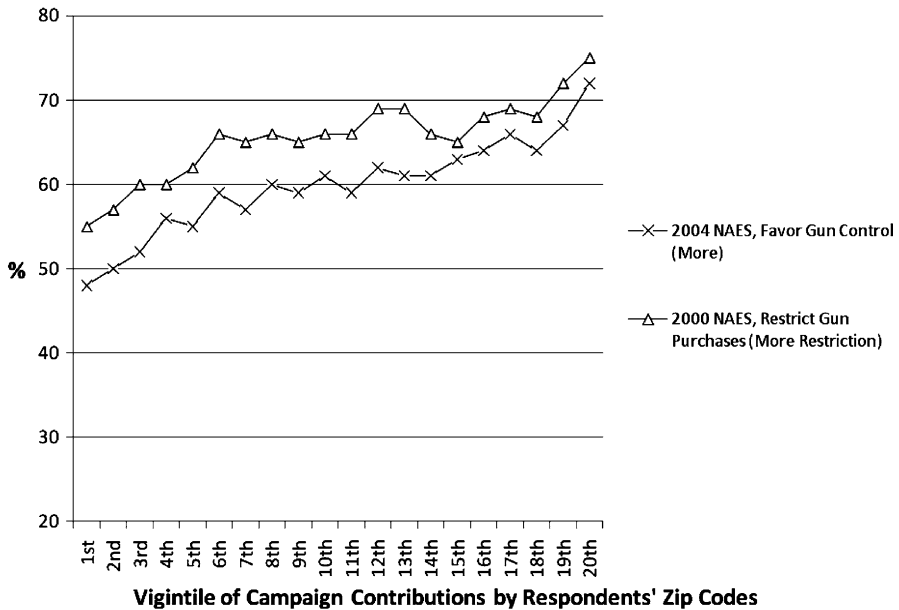


Fig. 3 Gun attitudes by vigintile of zip code campaign contribution amount, 2000, 2004 (sources: National Annenberg Election Study 2000 and 2004)

taking a cosmopolitan or libertarian position across vigintiles (20ths) of total donations from zip codes of respondents.

Figure 1 displays opinion on trade, foreign competition, and immigration in neighborhoods across the full range from lowest to highest in total contribution amounts. The wording on these items differs across surveys, but the patterns are very similar from year to year. Respondents living within major donor zip codes are substantially more supportive of open trade and immigration than those living in the low-donation zip codes. There is a clear linear relationship between respondents' opinion on these issues and their neighborhood's amount of campaign contributions. But the shift in opinion is most pronounced at the very high end of the range. Respondents from neighborhoods in the 20th vigintile are considerably more anti-populist than even those from the 19th vigintile. On the "foreign competition a problem" item from the 2000 NAES, there is a gaping 31 percentage point difference in opinion across the entire range of neighborhoods. In the 2004 NAES, respondents in the top vigintile were 17 percentage points more likely to support additional free trade agreements compared with those at the bottom. In the 2006 CCES, respondents from the most elite donor neighborhoods were more than 80% more supportive of trade agreements than those from the lowest-donor neighborhoods. With respect to immigration, low- and high-donor neighborhoods are separated by 20 percentage points on the "restricting immigration" item in the 2004 NAES, by 24 percentage points on the 2000 NAES "immigration a problem" item, and by 29 percentage points on the 2006 CCES item measuring support for granting

illegal immigrants the right to become U.S. citizens (termed “earned legalization” by proponents and “amnesty” by opponents).

Figure 2 displays opinion on the controversial social issues of abortion and gay rights in low-, average-, and high-contributing neighborhoods. On items measuring opinion on both sets of issues from all three surveys, respondents from the highest vigintiles of donor neighborhoods more strongly favor the more libertarian position than respondents from neighborhoods that contribute less. The effect is especially pronounced on same-sex marriage, with those from the most elite donor locations twice as open to allowing states to permit same-sex marriage (2004 NAES) and nearly twice as likely to oppose a constitutional ban on same-sex marriage (2006 CCES). All three surveys show respondents in major donor neighborhoods to be more supportive of abortion rights. As with opinion on trade and immigration, the most elite neighborhoods diverge the most sharply from the mainstream of opinion.

Figure 3 shows data on gun-related issues across the range of total neighborhood campaign contributions. Respondents’ support for gun-control policies in the 2004 NAES bears a clear linear relationship to their locality’s campaign contributions. In the 2000 NAES, there is less linearity across the full range of neighborhood contribution levels, but the major donor neighborhoods (the 19th and 20th vigintiles) are markedly different from the rest of the country.⁷

Across all three surveys, respondents in high-donor neighborhoods stand opposed to the populist causes of both the left and the right. In the critical fundraising areas for both Democrats and Republicans, residents share a point of view that can be described as far more cosmopolitan than the rest of the country. They are more outward looking and internationalist on trade and immigration. On matters involving alternative lifestyles and abortion, they take a more tolerant, secular outlook. In neighborhoods that are unimportant on the campaign finance landscape, residents’ political and policy views are considerably more populist and moralistic. Their views on abortion are more anchored in religious belief; their views on trade more nationalist, their views on immigration more ethnocentric, and their attitudes toward non-traditional lifestyles more morally restrictive. On these cosmopolitan/populist issues, opinion in the most elite neighborhoods is skewed away from the mainstream and even from other high-contributing neighborhoods.

Although the gaps between low- and high-contributing neighborhoods on cosmopolitan/populist issues are very large, they may well be nothing more than artifacts of how individuals are clustered geographically. Perhaps what appears to be a difference attributable to contextual differences in donor and non-donor neighborhoods will largely disappear once we account for appropriate control variables. Under the *self-selection hypothesis*, such differences would only be the result of big donors choosing to live in some areas and non-donors in other areas. On the other hand, the elite donor neighborhoods may have a political culture that fosters and amplifies cosmopolitan opinions and attitudes in residents. If the *socialization/*

⁷ The only firearms-relevant question in the 2006 CCES was whether the respondent happened to own a gun (not shown in Fig. 3). Fully 77.6% of those residing in the top campaign contribution neighborhoods reported that they did not own a gun, compared with only 44.3% among those in the lowest contribution bracket.

network effects hypothesis is supported, then living in high-donor neighborhoods will affect an individual's attitude on such issues after controlling for individual variation in partisanship, socioeconomic status, education, church attendance, and race.

Data and Methods

To isolate the effect of local context on individual opinion, we estimate hierarchical generalized linear models with a logistic link function for each of the survey items in Table 1, employing appropriate controls. All responses were coded so that the more libertarian/cosmopolitan of the response options is the higher of the binary values ($Y = 1$). Our goal here is not so much to understand the nuances of opinion formation or elaborate a model of individual opinion as to evaluate whether the donor neighborhood context has any effect on opinion after the introduction of key control variables at the individual level. This estimation approach allows us to identify how the values of each explanatory variable affect the probability of supporting a particular response. Given the large number of survey items being analyzed, we use summary statistics to aid interpretation of the results without bogging readers down in too much complexity.

We adopt a multilevel approach to modeling responses to these items because individual respondents are nested within zip codes.⁸ Specifically, we placed the zip code level covariate for contribution amounts at level-2, where its fixed effect on opinion can be estimated, along with its impact on the residual variance between zip codes (the random effect component). Donation amounts are therefore used to model variability in the level-1 intercept gauging mean support for the cosmopolitan opinion option, controlling for clearly relevant level-1 covariates, following the classic examples offered by Raudenbush and Bryk (2002, 72–75).

The key quantity of interest is captured by the level-2 variable measuring a neighborhood's total amount of campaign donations as the zip code's itemized contributions reported to the FEC for the election cycle in question. These amounts include donations both to political party organizations and directly to candidates for federal office from residents of the zip code.⁹

Controls at level-1 are introduced to account for the effects of education, race, income, partisanship, liberal-conservative political ideology, and church attendance on individual opinion. These variables are coded nominally since the survey instrumentation breaks the responses into groups that are not evenly spaced from low to high. Specifically, the effects of income differences are captured by dummy variables for nine income categories (with one exclusion). Race and ethnicity are

⁸ While the multi-level estimation strategy does involve some modest loss of cases in those locations where zip codes contained a single respondent, we found that the results did not change greatly using the generalized hierarchical model from a standard logistic regression model.

⁹ The FEC files very reliably report zip code information on contributors. We were able to minimize the number of missing zip codes by manually searching through the FEC files by name and address, often using complete records for a given contributor to fill in the zip code information for incomplete records for that same contributor. For 2004, we reduced the amount of contributions unattributable to any zip code to 2.6% of the total.

accounted for by dummy (1, 0) variables for black and Latino. Education levels are measured with two categorical variables, one for 4-year college degree or more and the other for less than high school. The effect of party identification is gauged with dummy variables for Republican and Democratic identifiers. Political ideology is gauged with two categorical variables; one contrasting self-reported “liberals” and all others (including moderates); the other contrasting “conservatives” and others.¹⁰ Frequency of religious observance is assessed with dummy variables for those who attend church at least once a week and never attend church.

Our goal is to determine whether the strikingly distinctive opinion patterns in high-donor areas displayed in Table 1 and Figs. 1, 2, and 3 are still present after these key controls are introduced: Does local context account for opinion once we control for these important individual-level covariates? As an additional gauge of the relevance of donor context, our analyses also report measures of the reduction in error yielded by the inclusion of only the individual level variables and the reduction in error afforded by the inclusion of both the level-1 and level-2 variables. Comparison of these two measures highlights that context typically accounts for a meaningful share of the overall performance of the models. Donor context often offers as much insight into political opinion as many of the individual-level factors most important for shaping opinion.

Moral and Cultural Issues

Tables 2, 3, and 4 display the results from the multilevel analyses of survey items addressing moral and cultural issues. Our estimates reveal that public opinion in the highest-donor neighborhoods is unquestionably distinctive, even after controlling for the personal characteristics that are most likely to shape respondents’ opinions. Public opinion originating from the geographic ATMs of American politics is *considerably more cosmopolitan and libertarian than one would expect simply on the basis of the individuals who live there*.

Table 2 displays the results of logistic regression analyses of opinion on abortion. On the 2000 NAES item asking about marketing the RU-486 abortion pill, those living in the major donor areas were 47% more supportive than those living in areas of no donor activity, controlling for individual factors affecting opinion on this issue.¹¹ Generally speaking, resistance to abortion restrictions ran about 30–40% higher for respondents in the most important donor neighborhoods than in the many areas that make no campaign contributions, even after taking into account

¹⁰ We fully recognize that the inclusion of ideology on the right hand side suggests that liberal-conservative ideology is the ‘cause’ of these issue opinions, rather than issue opinions being a source of liberal-conservative ideology. But our interest here is not to engage the thorny endogeneity issue, but simply to evaluate whether there is a substantive and statistically significant coefficient for contributing neighborhoods, even after we take the self-reported political ideology of the survey respondent into account. The results show that there is.

¹¹ As a summary estimate of impact, this 47% figure is computed from the estimated change in the probability of favoring support of the sale of RU-486 by moving the amount contributed from its lowest to highest amount, with the values of all other variables in the model held constant at their sample means. Other estimates of impact we discuss throughout the remainder of the text are computed the same way.

Table 2 Hierarchical logistic regression results for abortion related items

Independent variables	Abortion pill (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Abortion restriction (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Ban abortions (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Abortion opinion (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)	Ban late term abortion (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	0.160 (0.165)	0.679** (0.085)	1.316** (0.038)	-0.064 (0.046)	-0.291** (0.047)
<i>Level 2 predictor</i>					
Amount contributed (in \$100,000s)	0.035** (0.011)	0.030** (0.007)	0.016** (0.004)	0.010** (0.003)	0.009** (0.003)
<i>Level 1 predictors</i>					
Republican	-0.373** (0.080)	-0.399** (0.043)	-0.480** (0.025)	-0.606** (0.038)	-0.703** (0.038)
Democrat	0.247** (0.080)	0.149** (0.043)	0.296** (0.027)	0.340** (0.034)	0.366** (0.033)
Income: \$10,000–15,000	0.139 (0.191)	0.004 (0.103)	-0.181** (0.054)	-0.297** (0.092)	-0.112 (0.095)
Income: \$15,000–25,000	0.267 (0.175)	0.105 (0.089)	-0.110** (0.044)	-0.292** (0.062)	-0.200** (0.065)
Income: \$25,000–35,000	0.457** (0.171)	0.198* (0.087)	0.018 (0.041)	-0.199** (0.052)	-0.118* (0.052)
Income: \$35,000–50,000	0.542** (0.168)	0.275** (0.084)	0.106** (0.037)	-0.081 (0.048)	-0.058 (0.049)
Income: \$50,000–75,000	0.743** (0.167)	0.396** (0.085)	0.224** (0.036)	0.085 (0.050)	0.071 (0.050)
Income: \$75,000–100,000	0.967** (0.181)	0.617** (0.092)	0.363** (0.040)	0.221** (0.057)	0.094 (0.059)
Income: \$100,000–150,000	1.126** (0.194)	0.747** (0.102)	0.502** (0.044)	0.328** (0.054)	0.227** (0.054)
Income: \$150,000 or more	0.881** (0.206)	0.891** (0.119)	0.658** (0.052)	0.450** (0.072)	0.391** (0.068)
Less than high school	-0.579** (0.136)	-0.402** (0.072)	-0.472** (0.044)	-0.620** (0.082)	-0.223** (0.086)
Four year college degree	0.286** (0.083)	0.191** (0.044)	0.185** (0.025)	0.217** (0.039)	0.214** (0.039)
Black	-0.376** (0.131)	0.255** (0.066)	-0.034 (0.039)	0.159** (0.049)	0.050 (0.049)
Hispanic	-0.257 (0.133)	-0.110 (0.072)	-0.522** (0.041)	-0.186** (0.049)	-0.052 (0.050)
Attend church often	-1.092** (0.068)	-1.035** (0.037)	-1.037** (0.022)	-0.865** (0.039)	-0.484** (0.040)
Never attend church	0.739** (0.106)	0.659** (0.057)	0.407** (0.033)	0.787** (0.032)	0.629** (0.033)
Conservative	-0.814** (0.074)	-0.846** (0.039)	-0.839** (0.023)	-1.396** (0.036)	-1.306** (0.037)
Liberal	0.406** (0.087)	0.406** (0.048)	0.415** (0.031)	0.902** (0.038)	0.936** (0.037)

Table 2 continued

Independent variables	Abortion pill (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Abortion restriction (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Ban abortions (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Abortion opinion (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)	Ban late term abortion (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	0.160 (0.165)	0.679** (0.085)	1.316** (0.038)	−0.064 (0.046)	−0.291** (0.047)
Level 1 N	5,143	17,855	56,503	31,582	30,020
Level 2 N	3,489	7,948	11,961	11,847	11,608
τ -intercept only	0.170	0.160	0.175	0.232	0.153
τ -level 1 only	0.108	0.057	0.058	0.117	0.032
τ -level 1 and 2	0.101	0.045	0.055	0.115	0.031
Reduction in error level 1	36.5%	64.4%	66.9%	49.6%	79.1%
Reduction in error levels 1 and 2	40.6%	71.9%	68.6%	50.4%	79.5%

Sources: NAES 2000, 2004; CCES 2006

* $p \leq 0.05$, ** $p \leq 0.01$

Table 3 Hierarchical logistic regression results for school prayer, gay rights, and stem cell items

Independent variables	School prayer (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Same-sex marriage (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Ban same-sex marriage (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)	Stem cell funding (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Stem cell funding (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	−0.699** (0.080)	−0.257* (0.104)	0.562** (0.075)	1.667** (0.126)	1.312** (0.055)
<i>Level 2 predictor</i>					
Amount contributed (in \$100,000s)	0.008 (0.007)	0.027** (0.008)	0.028** (0.005)	0.008 (0.008)	0.010** (0.002)
<i>Level 1 predictors</i>					
Republican	−0.321** (0.041)	−0.652** (0.077)	−0.999** (0.059)	−0.378** (0.079)	−0.509** (0.038)
Democrat	0.050 (0.038)	0.177** (0.067)	0.563** (0.061)	0.417** (0.090)	1.114** (0.051)
Income: \$10,000–15,000	0.002 (0.096)	−0.292 (0.171)	−0.051 (0.173)	−0.072 (0.179)	0.086 (0.120)
Income: \$15,000–25,000	0.132 (0.084)	0.084 (0.127)	0.011 (0.115)	−0.030 (0.142)	−0.003 (0.078)
Income: \$25,000–35,000	0.290** (0.082)	−0.135 (0.119)	−0.131 (0.089)	0.078 (0.139)	0.044 (0.061)
Income: \$35,000–50,000	0.485** (0.079)	0.232* (0.111)	−0.137 (0.081)	−0.065 (0.124)	0.026 (0.056)
Income: \$50,000–75,000	0.550** (0.080)	0.137 (0.106)	−0.030 (0.082)	0.115 (0.119)	0.073 (0.058)
Income: \$75,000–100,000	0.853** (0.086)	0.518** (0.115)	0.167 (0.092)	0.254 (0.130)	0.166* (0.068)
Income: \$100,000–150,000	0.990** (0.091)	0.455** (0.124)	0.217* (0.085)	0.409** (0.144)	0.241** (0.061)
Income: \$150,000 or more	1.176** (0.105)	0.636** (0.144)	0.223* (0.112)	0.527** (0.163)	0.397** (0.082)
Less than high school	−0.627** (0.073)	−0.900** (0.138)	−0.683** (0.172)	−0.279* (0.141)	−0.406** (0.098)
Four year college degree	0.352** (0.040)	0.265** (0.071)	0.547** (0.061)	0.122 (0.082)	0.190** (0.047)
Black	−0.572** (0.062)	−0.514** (0.113)	−0.321** (0.106)	−0.346** (0.128)	0.182* (0.072)
Hispanic	−0.031 (0.062)	0.065 (0.114)	−0.024 (0.098)	−0.296* (0.132)	−0.143* (0.061)
Attend church often	−0.536** (0.035)	−0.852** (0.065)	−0.691** (0.064)	−0.959** (0.071)	−0.760** (0.042)
Never attend church	0.820** (0.045)	0.352** (0.080)	0.657** (0.056)	0.261* (0.114)	0.540** (0.040)
Conservative	−0.470** (0.038)	−0.974** (0.072)	−2.161** (0.056)	−0.819** (0.074)	−0.198** (0.037)
Liberal	0.349** (0.040)	0.931** (0.069)	1.391** (0.074)	0.537** (0.111)	0.987** (0.067)

Table 3 continued

Independent variables	School prayer (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Same-sex marriage (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Ban same-sex marriage (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)	Stem cell funding (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Stem cell funding (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	-0.699** (0.080)	-0.257* (0.104)	0.562** (0.075)	1.667** (0.126)	1.312** (0.055)
Level 1 N	19,974	7,011	14,971	5,787	30,401
Level 2 N	8,429	4,556	8,003	4,044	11,576
τ -intercept only	0.257	0.229	0.230	0.117	0.166
τ -level 1 only	0.113	0.115	0.102	0.076	0.067
τ -level 1 and 2	0.107	0.085	0.081	0.075	0.061
Reduction in error level 1 only	56.0%	49.8%	55.7%	34.9%	59.6%
Reduction in error levels 1 and 2	59.6%	62.9%	64.8%	36.2%	63.3%

Sources: NAES 2000, 2004; CCES 2006

* $p \leq 0.05$, ** $p \leq 0.01$

Table 4 Hierarchical logistic regression results for gun control items

Independent variables	Gun restriction (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Gun control (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	0.791** (0.053)	0.468** (0.047)
<i>Level 2 predictor</i>		
Amount contributed (in \$100,000s)	0.014* (0.007)	0.015 (0.008)
<i>Level 1 predictors</i>		
Republican	−0.318** (0.025)	−0.384** (0.030)
Democrat	0.599** (0.027)	0.518** (0.031)
Income: \$10,000–15,000	−0.120 (0.064)	0.030 (0.070)
Income: \$15,000–25,000	−0.155** (0.056)	−0.065 (0.054)
Income: \$25,000–35,000	−0.268** (0.055)	−0.138** (0.051)
Income: \$35,000–50,000	−0.327** (0.053)	−0.189** (0.047)
Income: \$50,000–75,000	−0.343** (0.053)	−0.284** (0.045)
Income: \$75,000–100,000	−0.205** (0.058)	−0.202** (0.050)
Income: \$100,000–150,000	−0.023 (0.063)	−0.110* (0.053)
Income: \$150,000 or more	−0.076 (0.072)	−0.008 (0.061)
Less than high school	−0.042 (0.043)	0.070 (0.056)
Four year college degree	0.054* (0.027)	0.077* (0.031)
Black	0.733** (0.048)	0.804** (0.056)
Hispanic	0.438** (0.046)	0.488** (0.054)
Attend church often	0.201** (0.023)	0.099** (0.027)
Never attend church	−0.170** (0.030)	−0.123** (0.036)
Conservative	−0.623** (0.024)	−0.561** (0.028)
Liberal	0.264** (0.030)	0.366** (0.035)
Level 1 N	44,830	31,023
Level 2 N	11,768	9,806
τ-intercept only	0.175	0.199
τ-level 1 only	0.098	0.096
τ-level 1 and 2	0.093	0.094
Reduction in error level 1 only	44.0%	51.8%
Reduction in error levels 1 and 2	46.9%	52.8%

Sources: NAES 2000, 2004

* $p \leq 0.05$, ** $p \leq 0.01$

differences among the types of people who live in donor and non-donor locales. For items on both the 2004 and 2006 surveys, views on abortion were as cleaved by place of residence *at least as much as they were along individual lines of difference*, supporting the inference that there are place effects that are neither trivial nor reducible to the composition of residents who happen to inhabit a location. Figures 1, 2, and 3 indicated that the differences in opinion were most striking for respondents in the very highest contributing neighborhoods. Accordingly, change in

opinion was much smaller across a single standard deviation increase in *Amount Contributed* (in \$100,000 *s*)—about 4%.

We are, however, interested in how donor context affects opinion at the very highest end of the distribution because this is where the vast bulk of campaign dollars originate. Unlike most studies of public opinion, we are not especially interested in typical individuals. Because of this, we highlight how a shift in neighborhood contributions from its minimum level to its maximum level affects respondent opinion. Given that major donors are so densely concentrated, the contribution variable is highly right-skewed, with fewer zip codes at the highest end of the distribution and many more lying toward zero. We are mainly interested in residents at the very highest end of the contribution scale, at and above the 95th percentile of donations, as they compare to others.

Donor context has a similarly important effect on opinion on other moral issues. Table 3 displays hierarchical logistic regression results for items measuring opinion on school prayer, gay rights, and stem cell research. Opposition to school prayer was vastly higher in the big contributor neighborhoods than in the non-contributing neighborhoods, even after taking into account respondents' church attendance and other individual factors affecting opinion. In the 2000 NAES, respondents in the top donor neighborhoods were 62% less likely to favor the federal government permitting school prayer than residents of neighborhoods that do not make campaign contributions, all else being equal.

The 2004 and 2006 surveys included several items measuring attitudes on gay rights and gay marriage. In the 2004 NAES, support for the passage of state laws favoring same-sex marriage ran an estimated 67% higher in the top donor locations than it did in those at the bottom, controlling for respondents' party identification, education, and other factors. Panelists in the CCES 2006 living at the highest end of the contribution ladder were 47% more likely to oppose a constitutional amendment to ban gay marriage than panelists from zip codes that gave no money at all.

What of the role of religious attendance on responses to these moral questions? Our results revealed, predictably, that those who attend religious services on a weekly basis (or more) are far more restrictive on the issues of abortion, stem cell research, and gay marriage. But after controlling for the effect of regular religious observance on these opinions, we still see the residents of the top donor neighborhoods separating themselves from the far larger number of Americans living in locations where there is little or no campaign money contributed. Simply put, the residents of the major donor neighborhoods do not reflect the values and opinions of the rest of the nation's residents, and they are more out of step with the nation's mainstream than one would expect based on the degree of religious devotion in these types of areas as well as other individual-level factors. Compared to the rest of the country, residents of high-donor areas are remarkably ready to accommodate alternative lifestyles and to permit access to abortion services. On these contentious moral issues, they take the most permissive or libertarian of stands.

Table 4 presents the results of the hierarchical logistic regression analysis of opinion on issues related to gun control. Findings indicate that place of residence

powerfully affects the cultural politics of gun control, independent of partisanship, race, socioeconomic status, left–right ideology, and education. Although individual background characteristics unquestionably shape opinion on the Second Amendment, a chasm remains between the residents of big-donor locations and the residents who live in communities that make no contributions, even after we take individual sources of variation in opinion into account.

Results for Opinion on Trade, Immigration, and Foreign Competition

Our analysis of opinion on trade, immigration, and foreign competition across the three surveys also suggests that donor context has powerful influence on respondents' opinion. The coefficients for the key explanatory variable, *Amount Contributed (in \$100,000s)*—shown across the top of Table 5—are meaningful (given that the metric is contributions in hundreds-of-thousands of dollars) and statistically significant for all but one of the items.

Public opinion in big-donor neighborhoods is more strongly tilted in favor of free trade than one would expect without taking neighborhood context into account. For example, on the 2004 NAES question on the desirability of the federal government encouraging free trade, the probability that a respondent will support a free trade position increases 27% from the lowest contributing zip codes to the highest, controlling for other factors that affect individual opinion. Similarly, a 2004 NAES respondent's probability of favoring new trade agreements increased about 39% from the bottom to the top of the distribution of neighborhood campaign contributions. The 2006 CCES item on the ratification of the Central American Free Trade Agreement (CAFTA) produced results of similar gaping magnitude, with favorability toward CAFTA increasing by 65.4% when comparing respondents in the lowest contributing areas to those in the highest.

On immigration, too, the effects of living in high-donation contexts are remarkable, though more modest than on the items relating to trade and open markets. On the 2000 NAES, citizens living in high-donor neighborhoods are an estimated 68% less likely than those in the non-donating areas to agree that immigration is a “serious” or “extremely serious” problem. The same holds for the 2004 NAES question on the desirability of free and unrestricted immigration flows. Respondents from the highest contributing areas were 39% more likely to favor a minimally restrictive policy than those living in areas with no money to contribute, all else being equal. When the 2006 CCES asked whether illegal immigrants should be allowed to become citizens through an earned legalization program, the contrast in opinion between the lowest and highest contributing neighborhoods amounted to a stunning 57% gap. Residents of the major donor zip codes were more likely to favor some type of legalization scheme than residents in the lowest-donor zip codes, after controlling for income, political ideology, education, and other individual-level factors that affect views of immigration.

Differences in opinion on trade and immigration between low- and high-donor neighborhoods are quite dramatic. Individual level covariates affect opinion in the expected ways. Respondents earning the very highest incomes are much more

Table 5 Hierarchical logistic regression results for trade, immigration, and foreign competition items

Independent variables	Foreign competition (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Immigration (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Encourage trade (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	More trade (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Restrict immigration (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	CAPTA free trade (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	-1.289** (0.083)	-0.876** (0.075)	0.792** (0.221)	-0.251** (0.034)	-2.005** (0.079)	-0.960** (0.048)
<i>Level 2 predictor</i>						
Amount contributed (in \$100,000s)	0.008 (0.009)	0.009 (0.005)	0.065* (0.028)	0.010** (0.003)	0.009** (0.002)	0.016** (0.003)
<i>Level 1 predictors</i>						
Republican	0.141** (0.040)	-0.172** (0.040)	0.372* (0.161)	0.303** (0.024)	-0.0485** (0.065)	0.441** (0.036)
Democrat	-0.038 (0.038)	0.029 (0.037)	-0.204 (0.138)	-0.038 (0.023)	0.112* (0.052)	-0.126** (0.036)
Income: \$10,000–15,000	-0.046 (0.099)	-0.139 (0.092)	-0.253 (0.316)	0.009 (0.051)	0.046 (0.114)	-0.257** (0.099)
Income: \$15,000–25,000	-0.014 (0.088)	-0.274** (0.081)	-0.577* (0.239)	-0.034 (0.040)	-0.067 (0.092)	-0.089 (0.063)
Income: \$25,000–35,000	0.025 (0.084)	-0.242** (0.079)	-0.288 (0.235)	-0.043 (0.038)	-0.144 (0.091)	-0.188** (0.051)
Income: \$35,000–50,000	0.267** (0.081)	-0.072 (0.076)	-0.025 (0.221)	-0.017 (0.034)	-0.245** (0.084)	-0.075 (0.047)
Income: \$50,000–75,000	0.488** (0.081)	0.114 (0.075)	0.155 (0.219)	-0.011 (0.033)	-0.282** (0.083)	-0.037 (0.049)
Income: \$75,000–100,000	0.814** (0.085)	0.319** (0.081)	-0.109 (0.225)	0.072* (0.036)	-0.207* (0.090)	0.065 (0.055)
Income: \$100,000–150,000	1.078** (0.093)	0.505** (0.087)	0.180 (0.272)	0.242** (0.039)	-0.172 (0.100)	0.390** (0.050)
Income: \$150,000 or more	1.519** (0.107)	0.670** (0.098)	0.674 (0.346)	0.541** (0.046)	0.089 (0.107)	0.776** (0.067)
Less than high school	-0.425** (0.073)	-0.520** (0.072)	0.050 (0.257)	0.149** (0.040)	0.129 (0.086)	-0.108 (0.082)
Four year college degree	0.509** (0.039)	0.393** (0.039)	0.392** (0.152)	0.194** (0.023)	0.095 (0.056)	0.417** (0.037)
Black	-0.484** (0.068)	-0.150* (0.061)	-0.121 (0.219)	0.109** (0.036)	0.172* (0.079)	0.051 (0.050)
Hispanic	0.367** (0.064)	0.187** (0.064)	0.705** (0.259)	0.911** (0.040)	0.728** (0.077)	0.649** (0.046)
Attend church often	-0.074* (0.036)	0.088* (0.035)	-0.008 (0.128)	-0.097** (0.020)	0.155** (0.052)	-0.045 (0.037)
Never attend church	0.321** (0.044)	0.302** (0.044)	0.209 (0.163)	-0.103** (0.026)	0.238** (0.061)	-0.043 (0.032)
Conservative	-0.109** (0.038)	-0.204** (0.037)	-0.050 (0.143)	-0.113** (0.022)	-0.234** (0.061)	0.195** (0.035)
Liberal	0.097* (0.041)	0.314** (0.039)	-0.010 (0.154)	0.010 (0.025)	0.630** (0.055)	-0.148** (0.039)

Table 5 continued

Independent variables	Foreign competition (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Immigration (NAES 00) Coef. (SE)	Encourage trade (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	More trade (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	Restrict immigration (NAES 04) Coef. (SE)	CAFTA free trade (CCES 06) Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	–1.289** (0.083)	–0.876** (0.075)	0.792** (0.221)	–0.251** (0.034)	–2.005** (0.079)	–0.960** (0.048)
Level 1 N	20,175	20,114	1,618	50,232	17,768	26,242
Level 2 N	8,480	8,455	1,475	11,475	7,737	10,897
τ -intercept only	0.252	0.150	0.124	0.095	0.214	0.076
τ -level 1 only	0.128	0.103	0.144	0.059	0.103	0.059
τ -level 1 and 2	0.118	0.093	0.124	0.058	0.061	0.052
Reduction in error level 1 only	49.2%	31.5%	–16.1% ^a	37.9%	52.1%	22.4%
Reduction in error levels 1 and 2	53.2%	38.0%	0%	38.9%	71.5%	31.6%

Sources: NAES 2000, 2004; CCES 2006

* $p \leq 0.05$, ** $p \leq 0.01$

^a Negative reduction in error can occur when nonsignificant variables are introduced, inflating residual variance

supportive of free trade and liberal immigration policies than those in the lowest income brackets. Education and race also commonly figure into opinion formation on these issues. Predictably, Latinos are far more supportive of lenient immigration policies than non-Latinos in these surveys. Partisan identification plays a role on immigration questions and often on trade policy, as well. But after taking all of these factors into account, residential context also has a notable effect, one that rivals and often exceeds these common individual attributes in magnitude of impact.

Where the Cosmopolitan-Populist Divide Disappears

As shown in the lower section of Table 1, public opinion in high-donating areas of the country is not skewed away from the nation's mainstream on all types of political issues. The gap between donor and non-donor neighborhoods disappears on matters that do not speak to the cosmopolitan/populist divide we have identified.

To confirm the non-results on these issues that were evident in Table 1, we conducted hierarchical logistic regression analysis of all remaining items. The full results are displayed in the tables in Appendix B. After taking into account the potentially confounding effects of individual variation in income, education, and other factors, we find that residents of major donor neighborhoods *are rather indistinct from* residents of areas unimportant to campaign finance. Simply put, it is the libertarian anti-populism of elite donor neighborhoods that makes them stand out in such great relief. On issues not involving such matters, we find little appreciable division by place of residence. Instead, individual factors alone account for variation in opinion on such issues.

Opinion on affirmative action is driven by racial and partisan considerations. On the highly partisan matters of the minimum wage and capital gains taxes, we find no effects of contributor context. Instead, partisan, racial, and income distinctions drive opinion on these issues. Nothing about big-donor communities suggests that they are appreciably different from non-donor neighborhoods in their support or opposition to these issues. Attitudes on such matters follow individuals' socioeconomic status and party identification. Similarly, on healthcare, the impact of place of residence is not statistically discernible from zero.

Finally, respondents were asked about the role of government in leveling income and their perception of poverty as a major societal problem in the 2000 and 2004 surveys. On these straightforwardly redistributive themes, residing among high-end political contributors made no statistically significant difference. On issues unrelated to the populist/cosmopolitan divide, opinion in high-donor areas is no more unrepresentative of the nation than one would expect on the basis of the types of individuals who live there.

In short, major donor areas are distinctive on a particular subset of important political issues, but not across the board. A likely explanation for these findings stems from the underlying fact that major donor locations are clustered in the nation's largest metropolitan areas (Gimpel et al. 2006; Gimpel and Lee 2006). A significant body of sociological research has established that urbanism is associated

with less adherence to traditional values. Urban areas are not distinct across all or even most social practices and political values, but urban residents are notably more libertarian and tolerant of diversity. One prominent theory postulates that urban life has an independent effect on the individuals who live there because “population concentration generates a variety of subcultures,” (Fischer 1995, 544) meaning “the concentration at a critical mass of innovative and deviant subcultures” (Fischer 1975b, 421). As in this study, sociological researchers have found that the distinct libertarianism/tolerance of urban areas cannot be fully explained by the race, class, education or other differences between the types of individuals living in urban and nonurban areas (e.g., Fischer 1975a, b, 1995; McClosky and Zaller 1984; Tuch 1987; Wilson 1991). Untangling the precise etiology of the distinct climate of opinion in major donor areas extends beyond the scope of this paper. However, the findings here are reinforced by a large sociological literature on differences in behavior and belief between urban and nonurban areas.

Discussion

“The very rich are different from you and me,” observed F. Scott Fitzgerald. Our data do indeed point to considerable difference, but the findings suggest that being rich alone is not the whole story. Instead, the results of our analyses point toward a distinct political culture of elite areas—a finding that would probably not surprise the author of *The Great Gatsby*. Political opinion in the small number of locations that largely fund political campaigns throughout the United States is different, and the differences are not entirely a consequence of the individuals who happen to live there. Residents of these locations are strongly opposed to important populist causes that animate both the political left and right in the U.S. Indeed, they are more opposed than one would expect simply on the basis of their personal characteristics, including income, race, religious affiliation, and political ideology. The results instead suggest that big-donor neighborhoods foster and reinforce a noteworthy anti-populist outlook.

Previous research has established that major campaign donors are highly unrepresentative of the broad public. The results presented here suggest that they are even *more* unrepresentative once their place of residence is taken into account. Donor neighborhood context influences individual opinion on an important subset of political issues, including abortion, immigration, trade, gay rights, and gun control. In the relative handful of neighborhoods that substantially fund political campaigns, residents’ opinions are far more out-of-step with the public than one would expect based on their personal characteristics as individuals. Donor neighborhoods embed their residents in an environment that socializes them and links them together in ways that skew opinion away from the national mainstream. When it comes to maintaining a market open to unrestricted mobility of labor and goods across international boundaries, the residents of exclusive donor locales exhibit highly supportive, libertarian views, controlling for their partisan loyalties, income, education, race, political ideology, and the frequency of religious observance. Fused to this distinctive economic outlook is an equally broadminded, libertarian view of morality and lifestyle choice, again controlling for relevant individual level covariates.

The small number of neighborhoods that accounts for such a large share of all federal campaign donations merits closer scrutiny than they have received thus far in political science. While the correlation between the median income of zip codes and high contribution zip codes is positive and significant (for 2004 NAES: $\rho = 0.40$; $p \leq 0.001$), it is far from perfect, again justifying our focus on contribution amounts as a sign of *elite political activism*, not just high income, per se. Parties and candidates spend an inordinate amount of time interacting with residents of these particular neighborhoods. Inhabitants of these places host the fundraisers, serve as hubs in the donor networks, and do the early screening of candidates that determines who succeeds in the “money primaries.” The influence of the donor class may perhaps be felt less in the daily policymaking activity of officeholders, e.g., in congressional hearings and roll-call voting, than in who winds up being financed and elected in the first place. In this sense, big-donor locales and their unrepresentative patterns of opinion may play an agenda setting role, potentially distorting governmental policy. They are, for example, a potential root cause of policymakers’ tilt toward free trade or lenient immigration, even while national public opinion is either mixed or dead-set against such policies. On moral and religious issues, the hostility of the donor elite to traditionalist crusaders may receive greater weight than their numbers warrant.

The distinctive views of those living in the major political financing centers—the ATMs of American politics—also shed light on internal factionalism in both major political parties. Residents of these hotbeds of campaign donations are at odds with standard political party positions on an important subset of political issues. Even after accounting for higher levels of education and lower church attendance in these areas, Republican residents of high-donor areas are more permissive on abortion and gay marriage than is normal for their party. Even after accounting for their higher income and education, Democratic residents of high-donor areas are far more supportive of free trade and less concerned with job losses resulting from foreign competition than is typical for members of their party.

Commentators have taken note of such cleavages between a populist base and more cosmopolitan donors within both political parties. Frank (2010), for example, has excoriated Democratic officeholders for favoring the views of major contributors while losing touch with the party’s pro-union, anti-globalization grass roots: “Democrats don’t speak to angry, working-class people because a lot of them can’t speak to angry, working-class people. They don’t know how. Many of the party’s resident geniuses gave up on that constituency long ago, preferring instead to remodel their organization as the vanguard of enlightened professionals and the shrine of purest globaloney.” Similar complaints are heard on the right. “[T]hey use and abuse conservatives. We’re the shock troops, we do the heavy lifting making the phone calls, walking the precincts,” commented Richard Viguerie, “but the Republican politicians in the Congress and in the White House have, as long as I can remember, taken the religious conservatives for granted. They treat us in a symbolic way, give us symbolism.”¹² Whether such complaints have merit remains open to debate, but divergence between the views of major contributors and mainstream

¹² Quoted in Manjoo (2005).

public opinion has the potential to create significant friction both within the parties and between policymakers and the broader public.

Most candidates turn to a highly unrepresentative elite for their campaign funds. Whether this political inequality should best be remedied by further limiting large contributions, publicly financing campaigns, or through the recruitment of still more small donors is worth further scholarly attention. Documenting the potential for another source of political distortion has been our purpose here.

Appendix A

See Table 6.

Table 6 Question wording from surveys on issues

Year	Dependent variable	Question wording
2000 NAES	forcomp	Job loss to foreign competition a problem (extremely serious, serious, not too serious, not a problem)
2000 NAES	immprob	Immigration a problem (extremely serious, serious, not too serious, not a problem)
2000 NAES	gunrestrict	Federal government should expend effort to restrict gun purchases (more, same, less, none)
2000 NAES	sprayer	Federal government should allow school prayer (yes, no)
2000 NAES	RU486	Favor sale of RU-486 (favor, oppose)
2000 NAES	abortion	Favor restricting abortion (favor, oppose)
2004 NAES	encourtrade	Favor government encouraging trade (encourage a lot, encourage a little, discourage a little, discourage a lot)
2004 NAES	moretrade	Favor more trade agreements (strongly favor, somewhat favor, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose, neither favor nor oppose)
2004 NAES	immrestrict	Favor restricting immigration (more, same, less, nothing)
2004 NAES	abortban	Favor banning all abortions (strongly favor, somewhat favor, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose, neither favor nor oppose)
2004 NAES	guncontrol	Favor gun control (more, same, less, nothing)
2004 NAES	gaymarr	Favor state law allowing same-sex marriage (strongly favor, somewhat favor, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose)
2004 NAES	stemcell	Favor stem cell funding (favor, oppose)
CCES 2006	tradecfta	For/against ratify trade agreement—self vote (against, for)
CCES 2006	immcitzn	For/against immigrants become citizens—self vote (against, for)

Table 6 continued

Year	Dependent variable	Question wording
CCES 2006	abortion	Stmnt most agrees w/view on abortion (never permitted, only for rape/incest, other reasons than rape, always able to obtain)
CCES 2006	gaymarriage	Constitutional amendment banning gay marriage (strongly support, somewhat support, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose)
CCES 2006	partialbirth	For/against ban late-term abortions—self vote (against, for)
CCES 2006	stemcell	For/against fed funds stem cell research—self vote (against, for)
NAES 2000	affactionbk	Federal government should expend effort to stop job discrimination against blacks (more, same, less, none)
NAES 2000	health2	Americans without health insurance a problem (extremely serious, serious, not too serious, not a problem)
NAES 2000	poverty2	Poverty a problem (extremely serious, serious, not too serious, not a problem)
NAES 2000	incomediff	Federal government should reduce income differences (yes, no)
NAES 2000	svouchers	Favor school vouchers (favor, oppose)
NAES 2004	minwageinc	Favor increasing minimum wage (strongly favor, somewhat favor, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose, neither favor nor oppose)
NAES 2004	healthsr	Favor government prescription coverage for seniors (strongly favor, somewhat favor, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose, neither favor nor oppose)
NAES 2004	incomediff	Favor government trying to reduce income differences (strongly favor, somewhat favor, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose, neither favor nor oppose)
NAES 2004	svouchers	Favor school vouchers (strongly favor, somewhat favor, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose, neither favor nor oppose)
NAES 2004	iraqwd1yr	When troops should return home (right away, 3 months, 6 months, 1 year, more than 1 year, less than 3 months)
NAES 2006	affaction	Importance of affirmative act program issue (very important, important, somewhat important, not important)
NAES 2006	privatess	Favor/oppose—private retirement acct for SS (strongly favor, somewhat favor, neither favor nor oppose it, somewhat oppose, strongly oppose)
NAES 2006	iraqwd1yr	For/against withdrawing troops this yr—self vote (against, for)
NAES 2006	minwageinc	For/against incr min wage—self vote (against, for)
NAES 2006	capgains	For/against extend cap gains tax cuts—self vote (against, for)

Appendix B

See Tables 7, 8, and 9.

Table 7 Influence of neighborhood contributions on other issue opinions, controlling for individual characteristics, 2000

Independent variables	Affirmative action Coef. (SE)	Healthcare Coef. (SE)	Poverty Coef. (SE)	Income differences Coef. (SE)	School vouchers Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	-2.227** (0.079)	-2.597** (0.133)	1.705** (0.061)	0.548** (0.076)	-0.666** (0.075)
<i>Level 2 predictor</i>					
Amount contributed (in \$100,000s)	-0.001 (0.001)	-0.004 (0.003)	0.001 (0.001)	-0.000 (0.000)	-0.000 (0.001)
<i>Level 1 predictors</i>					
Republican	0.161** (0.040)	0.339** (0.055)	-0.288** (0.029)	-0.426** (0.039)	0.249** (0.039)
Democrat	-0.415** (0.044)	-0.664** (0.075)	0.341** (0.033)	0.280** (0.038)	-0.242** (0.038)
Income: \$10,000–15,000	0.094 (0.094)	-0.037 (0.171)	0.108 (0.077)	-0.215* (0.093)	-0.161 (0.089)
Income: \$15,000–25,000	0.066 (0.083)	-0.191 (0.150)	0.049 (0.065)	-0.140 (0.080)	-0.148 (0.078)
Income: \$25,000–35,000	-0.030 (0.083)	-0.152 (0.142)	0.090 (0.063)	-0.363** (0.078)	-0.164* (0.078)
Income: \$35,000–50,000	-0.075 (0.080)	0.137 (0.135)	-0.090 (0.062)	-0.505** (0.077)	-0.160* (0.074)
Income: \$50,000–75,000	-0.021 (0.080)	0.354** (0.134)	-0.132* (0.061)	-0.694** (0.076)	-0.160* (0.075)
Income: \$75,000–100,000	-0.177* (0.089)	0.542** (0.137)	-0.251** (0.065)	-0.950** (0.083)	-0.120 (0.082)
Income: \$100,000–150,000	-0.047 (0.094)	0.544** (0.148)	-0.337** (0.070)	-1.190** (0.091)	-0.161 (0.090)
Income: \$150,000 or more	0.032 (0.103)	0.779** (0.155)	-0.422** (0.077)	-0.151** (0.105)	0.144 (0.101)
Less than high school	0.109 (0.066)	-0.136 (0.119)	-0.101* (0.051)	0.324** (0.065)	-0.057 (0.064)
Four year college degree	-0.135** (0.043)	0.279** (0.056)	-0.211** (0.031)	-0.232** (0.039)	0.140** (0.040)
Black	-1.125** (0.100)	-0.598** (0.145)	0.458** (0.058)	0.615** (0.061)	0.375** (0.055)
Hispanic	-0.390** (0.075)	-0.146 (0.113)	-0.176** (0.049)	0.489** (0.062)	0.573** (0.062)
Attend church often	-0.042 (0.037)	-0.143** (0.055)	0.108** (0.027)	0.006 (0.034)	0.269** (0.034)

Table 7 continued

Independent variables	Affirmative action Coef. (SE)	Healthcare Coef. (SE)	Poverty Coef. (SE)	Income differences Coef. (SE)	School vouchers Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	-2.227** (0.079)	-2.597** (0.133)	1.705** (0.061)	0.548** (0.076)	-0.666** (0.075)
Never attend church	0.158** (0.047)	0.274** (0.069)	-0.227** (0.035)	-0.097* (0.044)	-0.223** (0.048)
Conservative	0.454** (0.039)	0.637** (0.054)	-0.532** (0.028)	-0.331** (0.036)	0.335** (0.037)
Liberal	-0.123* (0.050)	-0.484** (0.085)	0.332** (0.038)	0.438** (0.041)	-0.067 (0.042)
Level 1 N	44,571	20,311	44,930	19,709	18,597
Level 2 N	11,737	8,507	11,780	8,362	8,125
τ -intercept only	0.070	0.163	0.068	0.094	0.046
τ -level 1 only	0.044	0.070	0.048	0.031	0.042
τ -level 1 and 2	0.038	0.065	0.047	0.033	0.044

Source: NAES 2000

* $p \leq 0.05$, ** $p \leq 0.01$

Table 8 Influence of neighborhood contributions on other issue opinions, controlling for individual characteristics, 2004

Independent variables	Minimum wage Coef. (SE)	Prescription drug Coef. (SE)	Income differences Coef. (SE)	School vouchers Coef. (SE)	Iraq withdraw Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	2.066** (0.173)	2.340** (0.159)	0.467** (0.041)	-0.506** (0.033)	1.079** (0.214)
<i>Level 2 predictor</i>					
Amount contributed (in \$100,000s)	-0.003 (0.005)	0.000 (0.004)	0.000 (0.001)	-0.002 (0.001)	-0.009 (0.005)
<i>Level 1 predictors</i>					
Republican	-0.564** (0.110)	-0.101 (0.097)	-0.469** (0.029)	-0.335** (0.025)	-0.243 (0.142)
Democrat	0.846** (0.147)	0.634** (0.125)	0.429** (0.029)	0.314** (0.022)	-0.003 (0.139)
Income: \$10,000–15,000	0.221 (0.289)	0.181 (0.241)	0.341** (0.066)	-0.118* (0.050)	0.239 (0.325)
Income: \$15,000–25,000	0.316 (0.227)	0.242 (0.195)	0.310** (0.051)	-0.043 (0.040)	0.391 (0.265)
Income: \$25,000–35,000	0.383 (0.199)	0.027 (0.176)	0.166** (0.048)	-0.047 (0.038)	0.581* (0.256)
Income: \$35,000–50,000	0.023 (0.178)	0.363* (0.168)	0.264** (0.044)	-0.040 (0.034)	0.159 (0.221)
Income: \$50,000–75,000	0.192 (0.171)	0.146 (0.153)	0.072 (0.042)	0.025 (0.034)	0.048 (0.207)
Income: \$75,000–100,000	-0.169 (0.179)	-0.009 (0.164)	-0.142** (0.046)	0.058 (0.037)	0.162 (0.229)
Income: \$100,000–150,000	-0.401* (0.184)	-0.329* (0.167)	-0.367** (0.049)	0.069 (0.039)	-0.299 (0.240)
Income: \$150,000 or more	-0.463* (0.199)	-0.167 (0.204)	-0.490** (0.057)	-0.043 (0.045)	-0.356 (0.260)
Less than high school	0.065 (0.230)	0.328 (0.202)	-0.001 (0.050)	-0.093* (0.040)	0.158 (0.256)
Four year college degree	-0.260** (0.101)	-0.290** (0.096)	-0.086** (0.028)	-0.120** (0.023)	-0.344** (0.130)
Black	0.173 (0.218)	0.592* (0.256)	0.079 (0.046)	-0.255** (0.036)	0.773** (0.265)
Hispanic	0.995** (0.264)	0.258 (0.197)	0.249** (0.050)	-0.756** (0.044)	0.147 (0.240)
Attend church often	-0.129 (0.100)	0.013 (0.093)	-0.039 (0.026)	-0.096** (0.021)	-0.065 (0.128)
Never attend church	-0.194 (0.130)	-0.344** (0.116)	-0.086** (0.033)	0.231** (0.026)	-0.405** (0.156)
Conservative	-0.680** (0.107)	-0.739** (0.096)	-0.500** (0.027)	-0.303** (0.022)	-0.129 (0.132)
Liberal	0.583** (0.176)	0.460** (0.143)	0.443** (0.033)	0.199** (0.024)	0.199 (0.152)
Level 1 N	4,301	6,827	35,467	56,130	1,679
Level 2 N	3,249	4,545	10,691	11,921	1,499

Table 8 continued

Independent variables	Minimum wage Coef. (SE)	Prescription drug Coef. (SE)	Income differences Coef. (SE)	School vouchers Coef. (SE)	Iraq withdraw Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	2.066** (0.173)	2.340** (0.159)	0.467** (0.041)	-0.506** (0.033)	1.079** (0.214)
τ -intercept only	0.054	0.139	0.102	0.045	0.048
τ -level 1 only	0.043	0.099	0.056	0.034	0.021
τ -level 1 and 2	0.051	0.100	0.044	0.039	0.009

Source: NAES 2004

* $p \leq 0.05$, ** $p \leq 0.01$

Table 9 Influence of neighborhood contributions on other issue opinions, controlling for individual characteristics, 2006

Independent variables	Affirmative action Coef. (SE)	Social security Coef. (SE)	Iraq withdraw Coef. (SE)	Minimum wage Coef. (SE)	Capital gains tax cut Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	−0.191** (0.039)	−0.722** (0.044)	0.905** (0.050)	1.792** (0.056)	−0.275** (0.049)
<i>Level 2 predictor</i>					
Amount contributed (in \$100,000s)	−0.001 (0.002)	−0.001 (0.002)	−0.004** (0.001)	−0.002 (0.002)	0.003 (0.001)
<i>Level 1 predictors</i>					
Republican	0.017 (0.031)	0.859** (0.033)	−0.851** (0.036)	−0.329** (0.036)	0.993** (0.038)
Democrat	0.004 (0.029)	−0.761** (0.033)	1.297** (0.046)	1.505** (0.065)	−0.815** (0.037)
Income: \$10,000–15,000	−0.165* (0.078)	−0.320** (0.097)	0.441** (0.110)	0.446** (0.126)	−0.671** (0.111)
Income: \$15,000–25,000	−0.070 (0.050)	−0.154* (0.061)	0.368** (0.073)	0.502** (0.079)	−0.620** (0.071)
Income: \$25,000–35,000	−0.028 (0.040)	0.089 (0.048)	0.179** (0.056)	0.268** (0.059)	−0.363** (0.056)
Income: \$35,000–50,000	−0.028 (0.039)	0.227** (0.044)	0.043 (0.052)	0.040 (0.054)	−0.193** (0.051)
Income: \$50,000–75,000	−0.008 (0.041)	0.304** (0.047)	−0.057 (0.054)	−0.073 (0.055)	−0.049 (0.053)
Income: \$75,000–100,000	−0.007 (0.047)	0.330** (0.053)	−0.162** (0.062)	−0.184** (0.061)	0.053 (0.059)
Income: \$100,000–150,000	−0.003 (0.044)	0.410** (0.049)	−0.191** (0.059)	−0.190** (0.059)	0.275** (0.057)
Income: \$150,000 or more	0.052 (0.058)	0.402** (0.062)	−0.302** (0.079)	−0.239** (0.075)	0.546** (0.073)
Less than high school	0.111 (0.064)	−0.091 (0.079)	−0.154 (0.095)	0.009 (0.091)	0.152 (0.100)
Four year college degree	−0.180** (0.033)	0.190** (0.036)	−0.182** (0.045)	−0.313** (0.044)	0.115** (0.041)
Black	1.923** (0.055)	0.113* (0.048)	0.822** (0.069)	0.675** (0.078)	−0.190** (0.058)
Hispanic	0.340** (0.039)	0.199** (0.046)	0.303** (0.056)	0.257** (0.059)	−0.084 (0.054)
Attend church often	−0.010 (0.032)	0.024 (0.036)	−0.105* (0.043)	−0.032 (0.041)	0.057 (0.042)
Never attend church	−0.057* (0.028)	−0.155** (0.032)	0.166** (0.038)	−0.049 (0.039)	−0.138** (0.036)
Conservative	0.431** (0.030)	1.403** (0.032)	−1.772** (0.034)	−1.687** (0.038)	1.629** (0.036)
Liberal	0.241** (0.031)	−0.537** (0.038)	1.074** (0.057)	1.099** (0.081)	−1.001** (0.044)
Level 1 N	33,751	33,818	31,108	32,091	29,591
Level 2 N	12,149	12,162	11,737	11,868	11,427

Table 9 continued

Independent variables	Affirmative action Coef. (SE)	Social security Coef. (SE)	Iraq withdraw Coef. (SE)	Minimum wage Coef. (SE)	Capital gains tax cut Coef. (SE)
Intercept:	–0.191** (0.039)	–0.722** (0.044)	0.905** (0.050)	1.792** (0.056)	–0.275** (0.049)
τ -intercept only	0.078	0.133	0.157	0.143	0.147
τ -level 1 only	0.024	0.056	0.055	0.068	0.054
τ -level 1 and 2	0.027	0.053	0.054	0.064	0.054

Source: CCES 2006

* $p \leq 0.05$, ** $p \leq 0.01$

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